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EA 59:27–29 and the Efforts of Mukiš, Nuḫašše and Niya to Establish a Common Front against Šuppiluliuma I

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Our main source for the events in Syria preceding and during Šuppiluliuma I's "one-year-campaign" is the account in the prologue of the Šattiwaza treaty, *CTH* 51.1: A, obv. 30–47. Reading this account alone hardly evokes any questions. These begin to emerge when we compare it with other accounts such as are in the prologues of the Tette treaty (*CTH* 53), RS 17.227 and 17.340, or when trying to accommodate the events mentioned in it with some of the Amarna letters. Questions, in fact, are not limited to the section pertaining to Syria in the Šattiwaza treaty. They emerge as well throughout the entire prologue (obv. 1–58),[1] and may be encountered in other treaties as well.[2] This is due to the fact that the drafters of the Hittite vassal treaties were not committed to tell the entire truth, and the facts they did write down and the language in which they couched them were those which best served their legal goals. Regarding the events in Syria during Šuppiluliuma I's "one-year-campaign," while there is today more or less a consensus about their main course, there are still certain details that are open to debate. The present paper is devoted to discuss anew the known details pertaining to the diplomatic moves accompanied by military pressure that was launched by the kings of Mukiš, Nuḫašše and Niya in their attempt to establish a common military front in Syria against the Hittites.

I EA 59:27–28

In the Amarna letter EA 59, written by the citizens of Tunip to the Egyptian king, we find, among other complaints, an expression of their fear of Aziru, the new and aggressive ruler of Amurru. After an obscure paragraph (lines 20–24), in which the citizens of Tunip expressed their fear lest Aziru would hear about some hostile fate (NAM *sar-ra-tu₄*) that has overtaken in Hittite territory some unidentifiable Egyptian official, we find the following message (lines 25–28):

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[1] See Altman 2001a; Altman Forthcoming: Chapter 10.

[2] For questions emerging from the Tette treaty (*CTH* 53) see Altman 2002.

ù i-nu-ma ERÉN.MEŠ-*šu ù* ^{GIŠ}GIGIR.MEŠ-*šu aḫ-ru-*[*n*]*im-mi*
ù ni-i-nu ^{I}*A-zi-ra ki-i-ma* ^{URU}*Ni-i*^{KI} *i-ip-pu-uš-šu-nu*
"And should his troops and chariots be delayed,
then Aziru will treat us in the same manner as Niya."

It is clear that the citizens of Tunip were expecting some kind of trouble from Aziru, should the troops and chariotry of someone (most probably the Egyptian king) be delayed. We have no idea about the incident to which the citizens of Tunip referred in the previous paragraph. But it is obvious that they were afraid that because of it, something serious would befall them. For when Aziru would hear about it, and about the delay (perhaps in consequence of that incident) in the arrival of the army that was expected to guard Tunip, he would feel he had a free hand to treat Tunip at will.

What is not entirely clear is what kind of trouble they were expecting and what was the exact role of Niya in this statement. Knudtzon (1915:1,345) translated lines 27–28: "*dann wird Azira uns ebenso wie der Stadt Nii tun.*" Moran, in his recent translation of the Amarna letters (1992), followed Knudtzon and translated: "*Aziru will do to us just as he did to Nii.*" Accordingly, we have to assume that Aziru, the well-known troublemaker from Amurru, had previously acted against Niya in such a manner that caused the citizens of Tunip to fear they would suffer a similar fate.

From the grammatical point of view, nothing of course is wrong with this translation. Yet, grammatically, Niya may also be taken as the *subject* of the comparative clause, so that these lines may be rendered and understood differently:

"Aziru will do to us the same as Niya (has done to us)."

Namely, it was not Aziru who previously did something bad to Niya, but rather it was Niya that wronged Tunip, and the citizens of Tunip were now afraid lest something similar would happen to them again, this time by the hand of Aziru.

For a similar comparative clause see e.g. Langdon 1912:270, No. 8:18–19 (Nabunaid):

kīma uzzi ilīma ētepuš māti
"He (Sennacherib) treated the land much the same as the gods' wrath (treats it)."

Since both translations are grammatically correct, the question of the proper rendering in this specific case should be examined in an historical perspective and weighed against the known historical facts. In support of the idea that Aziru might have attacked Niya, we may take into account the fact that Aziru was a well-known troublemaker who had intervened in the affairs of other kings. Apart from the long war his family had conducted against Rib-Haddi of Byblos, he is known to have sent his army against Tyre (EA 149:57–63), to intervene in the affairs of the valley of the Beka' (EA 151:59–63; 197:27–29), and to act against Qatna (EA 55:44–46). He and his family are also known to have been in an extended conflict with Ugarit (RS 19.68 = *PRU* IV:284–286).

In support of the opposite opinion, the following facts and considerations should, however, be taken into account:

1. At this stage of Aziru's career, his activities were still confined to Amurru and southward along the Lebanese coast. His acts against Damascus and Qatna were made long after he took control of Tunip, that is, after Niya and Nuḫašše were conquered by Šuppiluliuma and Qadeš was defeated.[3]
2. Though we know of the conflict between the family of Aziru and Ugarit, we do not know its details, and by no means is it clear that Ugarit was on the just side.[4] In any event, there is no evidence of Aziru as ever trying to capture any territory belonging to Ugarit.
3. While we do not have any other piece of evidence that Aziru had ever attacked Niya or occupied it or even entered into any conflict with it, we do have information that Niya launched an attack against Ugarit (RS 17.340:2–8). Also, shortly after EA 59 was written, the kings of Nuḫašše—a designation that in all probability included also the king of Niya[5]—were accused by Aziru of starting hostilities against him (EA 160:24–25; 161:36–37), and taking some of his cities (EA 161:37–38). At that time, Aziru was already sitting in Tunip,[6] which constituted his furthest frontline towards Nuḫašše and Niya,[7] so that the "cities" taken by the kings of Nuḫašše should have been settlements located in the territory of Tunip. These hostilities of the kings of Nuḫašše should be dated not too long before Hittite troops entered Niya and Nuḫašše in the course of Šuppiluliuma I's "one-year-campaign," about which we hear in EA 164–167.[8] Some time later, we hear again of the kings of Nuḫašše as threatening to attack Amurru (EA 169:16ff.).[9]

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[3] According to EA 151 and 197, Aziru acted against Biryawaza of Damascus in coalition with Aitakkama of Qadeš. This, however, could have happened only after the latter was installed by the Hittites as a king of Qadeš, namely after the "one-year-campaign" ended. As for Aziru's acts against Qatna, the context of EA 55:44–47 indicates that he acted in the capacity of a Hittite agent, attempting to convince Akizzi of Qatna to accept Hittite suzerainty. This could have happened only after Aziru had reached an agreement with Šuppiluliuma, and this—not before the Hittite conquest of Nuḫašše and long after EA 59 was written; see note 11 below.

[4] Cf. more recently Singer 1999:627f.

[5] Compare RS 17.227:3–4 with RS 17.340:2–3. Both documents refer to the same events. But while RS 17.227 mentions only "the kings of Nuḫašše, all of them, and the king of Mukiš" as exerting diplomatic pressure upon Niqmaddu, RS 17.340 mentions, apart from the king of Mukiš, only one king of Nuḫašše and the king of Niya.

[6] EA 161:12.34. I would rather follow Izre'el 1991:II,34 in translating lines 32–34: "Your gods and the Sun-God be my witnesses if I am not residing/staying in Tunip" (pace Moran 1992:247: "I was residing"). The verb in question is the stative *aš-bá-ku*.

[7] Cf. EA 165:38–41; 166:21–27; 168:20–27, according to which the Hittite king is staying in Nuḫašše, which is only a "two day-marches to Tunip," and Aziru is afraid lest the Hittite king would come into Amurru and attack Tunip.

[8] While there is no conclusive proof that EA 160 and 161 predated EA 164–167, this is

4. Already before Aziru, also his father ʿAbdi-Aširta complained that the vassal kings of Mittani—most probably the kings of Nuḫašše—are threatening to attack Amurru (EA 60:13–18).[10]
5. Finally, I find it hard to understand how Aziru, who had hardly yet established his control over Amurru, while his arch-enemy Rib-Haddi of Byblos had not yet been defeated,[11] would have dared to open a new front. The more so, as this new front would have pitted him not only against Niya, but also against Mukiš and Nuḫašše, and perhaps also against Mittani![12]

Concluding these pros and cons, one has to admit that the possibility that EA 59:27–28 may refer to a hostile act carried out by Aziru against Niya cannot entirely be ruled out. Yet, with all reservations taken,[13] the possibility that it refers to a hostile act made by Niya against Tunip would still better fit the entire political picture of this period in the history of Syria as is known at present.

II Earlier Hittite and Mittanian Diplomatic Offensives

We have no clear indication at which stage of Šuppiluliuma's reign the diplomatic offensive of Mukiš, Nuḫašše and Niya started. The Amarna letters of the ʿAbdi-Aširta family, mentioned above, indicate three different occurrences of military pressure exerted upon Amurru by either Nuḫašše or "the kings of the king of the Ḫurri forces": (1) In the days of ʿAbdi-Aširta (EA 60:13–18), namely before the "one-year-campaign"; (2) during the "one-year-campaign" (EA 160:24–25; 161:36–38),[14] and (3) some time after the "one-year-campaign," during the sojourn of Aziru in Egypt (EA 169:16ff.).

The first occurrence of Hurrian pressure upon Amurru may be ascribed to the Hurrian reaction to Šuppiluliuma's deep "Syrian foray" that preceded his "one-year-campaign" and which was described in the prologue of the Šattiwaza treaty, *CTH* 51.1: A, obv. 4. According to this source, the "one-year-campaign" was preceded by a series of raids conducted by the kings of both Ḫatti and Mittani (A, obv. 1–10), of which one Hittite raid was launched deep into Syria up to the Lebanon mountain (A, obv. 4).[15] The laconic description of this raid, however, casts serious doubt on its real achievements to the extent that some scholars have even entirely denied it as ever having occurred. Rather than taking this reference as attesting to a separate campaign or raid, they saw in it a résumé of

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still the likeliest arrangement of these letters; note the following points: (1) EA 59 was written after Aziru seized Ṣumur (line 34), but not yet Tunip (27–28). (2) In EA 159:11–12.43–46, in response to an Egyptian demand (cf. 161:35–36), Aziru promised to rebuild Ṣumur, and this promise is repeated in EA 160:24–28 and 161:35–40; this Egyptian demand most likely should have been made shortly after Aziru seized that city. (3) In EA 160 and 161 Aziru excused the delay in fulfilling his promise to rebuild Ṣumur by the hostilities of the kings of Nuḫašše; at that time Aziru is already sitting in Tunip (EA 161:12:34, for which see note 6 above). (4) In all these letters, there is no mention of any Hittite threat to Amurru; it is only in EA 164–167 that we hear of the arrival of the Hittite army to Nuḫašše, a fact that is used by Aziru as an excuse to delay his appearance in Egypt to report to the Pharaoh. (5) EA 164–167 do not explicitly mention that Aziru is residing in Tunip, but from the fact that he again and again states his fear lest the Hittite king would attack Tunip (EA 165:40–41; 166:25–26; 167:22–23) we may infer that the city was already under his control. (6) The Egyptian demand from Aziru to report to the Pharaoh is a much more serious demand than just to rebuild Ṣumur. And if indeed the demand to rebuilt Ṣumur followed shortly its seizure by Aziru, the demand to report to the Pharaoh should be understood as an aggravation of the Egyptian pressure exerted upon Aziru, and to reflect thus a somewhat later phase than the demand to rebuilt Ṣumur.

[9] This letter should have been written at least some months after EA 164–167. That is, after the Hittite army left Nuḫašše, after Aziru left for Egypt, and after it became known that he was held back in Egypt.

[10] "Now, all the kings of the king of the Ḫurri forces seek to wrest the lands from my [hand?] and from the hand? of the ... [o]f the king, [my] lord." Cf. Izre'el 1991:11,7f. These kings could reasonably be only of the countries located to the east and northeast of Amurru, namely Nuḫašše and Niya.

[11] That EA 59 antedated the fall of Byblos is indicated by the following facts and considerations: EA 126:58–60 accuses Aziru for recruiting Hittite troops in order to capture Byblos. Such recruitment was, however, possible only after Aziru reached some understanding with Šuppiluliuma, though not necessarily by a treaty (the gold and silver referred to in lines 63–66 as having been delivered to the "strong king," might well have been a payment given to the Hittite king for these troops. However, it was not necessarily a tribute, as suggested by Singer 1991:154; cf. e. g., 2 Samuel 10,6; 1 Kings 15,18–19). The first hint we have of diplomatic contacts of Šuppiluliuma with Aziru is in EA 161:47–49, which echoes Egyptian accusations in this regard. At that time, Aziru had already won control over Tunip (EA 161:12.34), which means that this letter postdated EA 59, which only expressed fear lest Aziru would enter Tunip. In EA 59, however, there is yet no indication of any Hittite threat. Such indication appears in Aziru's letters for the first time in 164–167, which should have postdated EA 59, since when they were written, Aziru had already control over Tunip (see note 8 above, sub 5). By this Hittite threat to Tunip and Amurru, Aziru excused his request of the Pharaoh to let him postpone his arrival to Egypt. Such an excuse, however, was not possible if it were already known that Aziru employed Hittite troops. This, in turn, means that EA 126 was written sometime later than EA 164–167, and much later than EA 59. All this indicates that the Niya affair, referred to in EA 59, should have occurred long before Aziru was able to recruit Hittite troops to capture Byblos, and still much before Rib-Haddi was overthrown.

[12] Note that while Tunip, which at that particular time did not have a king, and its political affairs were run by its citizens, was an easy prey, Niya did have a king, who could have expected support from Mukiš, Nuḫašše, and perhaps also from Mittani.

[13] Aziru, who wrote EA 160–161, and his son, who wrote EA 169, had indeed an interest to exaggerate the danger from Nuḫašše, if not to invent it: Aziru, as a pretext for delaying the rebuilding of Ṣumur, and his son—in order to persuade the Egyptian court to allow his father to return to Amurru.

[14] See note 8 above.

[15] Although it is not entirely certain that Niblani should be identified with the Lebanon mountain (Liblani, Lablana), it is widely agreed. Cf. *RGTC* 6:285 (Niplani) and 244 (Lablana); *RGTC* 6/2:93 (Lablana).

the "one-year-campaign," that precedes its detailed description (lines 17–47).[16] However, the assertion in line 4 speaks of annexing only Mount Niblani, and of only plundering the lands of the west bank of the Euphrates, while the concluding statement in line 47 clearly speaks of annexing the *entire* territory "from Mount Niblani and from the far bank of the Euphrates." The statement in line 4 cannot, therefore, be taken as a résumé of the long campaign. In addition, two of the Amarna letters, EA 17 and 75, refer to these early raids, and at least EA 75 clearly refers to this "Syrian foray." In EA 75:36–38, Rib-Haddi informs the Pharaoh that "the king of Ḫatti has seized all the *subordinate*? countries of the king of Mittani, (namely) the king of *Naḫ‹ri›ma*."[17] These lines can hardly be understood other than being a reference to a campaign into northern Syria. This letter, which not only belongs to the earlier group of Rib-Haddi letters, but rather to the earlier part of this group,[18] can by no means be taken as referring to the "one-year-campaign."[19] The earliest echo of this latter campaign in the Amarna letters from Byblos and Amurru is in EA 157:28–29, one of the earliest letters of Aziru of Amurru, which corresponds in time to the later group of Rib-Haddi letters.[20] Thus, whether or not we take *CTH* 51.1: A obv. 4 as referring to

[16] Wilhelm and Boese 1987:85. Undecided is Bryce 1989:26f. (but see Bryce 1998:174f., where he entirely ignored its separate existence). Redford 1967:218 also ignored *CTH* 51.1: A, obv. 4, but accepted EA 75:35ff. as referring to an earlier Hittite campaign against Mittani. The majority of scholars, however, understand the assertion in question to refer to a separate, preceding campaign. See e.g., Kitchen 1962:25f.; Houwink ten Cate 1963:273; Klengel 1969:39; 1999:157; Helck 1971:170; Goetze 1975: 8–13 ("first Syrian war"); Murnane 1990:7.

[17] *i-nu-ma iṣ-ṣa-bat* LUGAL *Ḫa-ti ka-li* KUR.KUR KU.TI.TI LUGAL KUR *Mi-it-ta-ni-ma* LUGAL KUR *Na-aḫ-‹ri›-ma*. For the reading *Mi-it-ta-ni-ma*, instead of Knudtzon's *Mi-it-ta šum*(!)*-ma* see Youngblood 1961:156.165. I follow Moran (1992:145 and note 7 on p. 146) in understanding the context to require that the lands be associated in some way with Mittani, whatever is the correct reading of the expression KU.TI.TI. Yet despite the hesitation of Moran in reading here *Mittani*, and pace his understanding the words LUGAL KUR *Naḫ‹ri›ma* in line 39 as starting a new sentence, I would rather go along with Youngblood 1961:156.159.165f., in translating lines 38–39. Line 39 stands here in apposition with line 38, and the name *Naḫ‹ri›ma*, though not preceded by a gloss-sign, no doubt stands here as a gloss to the name Mittani.

[18] EA 75 mentions only the fall of the cities Irqata, Ardata and Ammiya, but not the fall of Ṣumur, the so important town to Rib-Haddi, being the site of the Egyptian commissioner through whom "Gubla (=Byblos) is living" (Cf. EA 68:19–21). EA 75 also does not mention yet the fall of Šigata and Ambi, which belonged to Rib-Haddi, and not the fall of Bit-Arḫ/q?a and Batruna which followed some time later. Accordingly, the following letters, which do refer to the fall of these towns, should in all probability have been written *after* EA 75: EA 71, 72?, 74, 76, 78, 79, 81, 83, 87, 88, 90, 91, 93. To these letters we also have to add EA 85, 86, and 95, which refer to the Mittanian campaign to Amurru, a campaign that in all likelihood was launched as a reaction to Šuppiluliuma's "Syrian foray."

[19] Pace Wilhelm and Boese 1987:87f.

[20] EA 157:9–16 still echoed Aziru's embitterment for being denied access to Amurru,

an earlier campaign (or foray), EA 75 does just that, entailing its existence. Moreover, EA 75 should warn us not to underestimate the effect this Hittite raid might have had on this region, despite the laconic wording of *CTH* 51.1: A obv. 4.

Returning to EA 60:13–18, these lines express ʿAbdi-Aširta's fear of a possible attack by kings subordinated to the king of Mittani. The letter does not identify these kings by their countries, and the fact that they were explicitly designated as subordinated to the Hurrian king may not necessarily be taken as hinting that he instigated them. All it indicates is that the pressure came from outside the borders of the Egyptian rule, and seems to reflect a diplomatic, but not yet military pressure exerted upon ʿAbdi-Aširta and Amurru in reaction to the Hittite raid.

This diplomatic pressure soon became military. In EA 58:4–6, we hear that the king of Mittani came forth with his army. Then in EA 85:51–55, Rib-Haddi informs the Pharaoh that the king of Mittani had reached as far as Ṣumur, and would have even gone as far as Byblos had he not run short of drinking water. That this Mittanian operation was indeed hostile we learn from EA 86:10–12, where Rib-Haddi quotes the complaint of the people of Amurru that very much was taken from them and brought to Mittani. A somewhat later reference to this Mittanian campaign into Amurru is found in EA 95:27–31, and further echoes, which seem to be connected with this campaign, are found in EA 90 and 101. In EA 90:19–22, somebody—ʿAbdi-Aširta, no doubt—is accused by Rib-Haddi for having visited the country of Mittani. In EA 101:5–10, the people of Amurru are said to be in distress because they lack wool and other goods to deliver as tribute (GÚ.UN)[21] to the land of Mittani.[22]

To this Mittanian campaign we also have to ascribe, in all probability, the episode of the attack of the people of Šeḫlal on Ṣumur, an event reported in two of ʿAbdi-Aširta's letters, EA 62 and 371. Nothing is known about Šeḫlal and its locality. But analyzing the possible alternatives, one is brought to look for it outside of the Amurru region, in central Syria. Long ago I have suggested to locate it in one of the *tells* near the modern village of *Šaḫlī*, located 16.5 km east-

and seems to indicate that it was written not too long after Aziru and his brother entered Amurru. This letter, however, reflects a quite advanced stage in Šuppiluliuma's "one-year-campaign," namely after he entered Syria; note lines 28–29 where Aziru raised the possibility that the Hittite king will attack Amurru. Such a possibility was likely to be raised by him only when Šuppiluliuma approached Niya and Nuḫašše. Rib-Haddi's letter EA 126, which refers to the fact that the Hittite troops have set fire to the countries (lines 51–52), is in all probability somewhat later than EA 157. For it reflects a later stage in the career of Aziru, after he had concluded an agreement with Šuppiluliuma that enabled him to recruit Hittite troops against Byblos (lines 58–60; see note 11 above).

[21] Cf. more recently Moran 1992:174, note 5.

[22] For further references that may have some connection to this episode see EA 100:20–22; 108:11–19; and 109:39–40.

southeast of *Ḥamā*, to the east of the Orontes.[23] Such a location would provide a strong case to include it among "the lands of Nuḫašše," still under the suzerainty of Mitiani. This, in turn, would enable us to connect the Šeḫlal's incursion into Ṣumur with the Mittanian campaign against Amurru. An essential link for this connection is the above mentioned letter of ʿAbdi-Aširta EA 60, where he quoted his entreatment to Paḫa(m)nata, the Egyptian commissioner residing in Ṣumur, to dispatch a military contingent in order to protect Amurru in face of the anticipated attack of Mittani's dependencies.

The thesis, that Šeḫlal's attack on Ṣumur was part of the Mittanian campaign into Amurru, may explain the strange fact that Rib-Haddi is totally silent about the Šeḫlal attack. Rib-Haddi, being at distance from the events, heard only rumors of the campaign and could not be more exact about who were the attackers of Ṣumur and what happened there, while ʿAbdi-Aširta was at the scene. This thesis would also clarify to some extent the problem of the strange, unwarranted Mittanian attack on Egyptian territory and its administrative center. Such an attack, which even in ordinary times would have been very unlikely, in light of the close relationships between Mitiani and Egypt, was especially so at this moment, when Mittani had faced a Hittite threat that menaced its suzerainty over northern Syria. The Mittanian king by no means could afford to endanger his relations with Egypt at this particular moment. This attack may, however, be more conceivable if it were carried out not by the Mittanian king himself but by his vassal kings. The Mittanian king might have marched indeed as far as the borders of the Egyptian domination in central Syria, a fact echoed evidently in EA 58. But the attack on Amurru was made in all likelihood by his subordinate countries, among which Šeḫlal undertook the most problematic role—the attack on Ṣumur.

Such an understanding of the Mitianian campaign against Amurru, even if more conceivable, still requires an explanation of its motives. Assuming that it was indeed the king of Mittani who stood behind the attack, we may see this move as signaling Egypt what may happen if the Egyptian king would not come to his aid against the Hittite aggression. Indeed, we do not have any explicit reference to a formal written treaty as ever having been concluded between Mitiani and Egypt, one that might have obligated the Pharaoh to extend military aid to Mitiani. Nor there is full agreement among scholars that such a treaty ever existed. Yet, the great majority, with whom I fully concur, do agree that such a treaty should have been concluded in the days of Thutmose IV, if not already in the days of Amenhotep II.[24] It seems inconceivable that the kings of Mitiani would have ever agreed to marry off their daughters to the Egyptian kings

[23] Altman 1978:103–107, and see there the reasons for locating it outside of Amurru. For the modern village of *Šaḫlī*, see Dussaud 1927: map VIII (C2). Helck (1971:172 note 18) identifies Šeḫlal in the great topographical list of Thutmosis III, no. 337, and accordingly suggests a location to the west of Niya.

[24] See most recently Bryan 1991:336f.; 2000:79; Redford 1992:164f.; Weinstein 1997:225; Kitchen 1997:252. Contra: Artzi 2000:205 and note 3 on p. 264.

(EA 29:16–22) without first concluding a written parity treaty. In such a treaty, an obligation of militarily help to an ally upon being attacked by a third party would have been one of the more important terms, particularly in view of the level of their relations augmented by inter-dynasty marriages.[25] Tušratta, the Mittanian king, was thus entitled to expect the Egyptian king to stand to his side, and the fact that he had to resort to such an unfriendly move against Egypt indicates some trouble in his relations with the Egyptians. It has been suggested that already in the last years of Amenhotep III,[26] or beginning with his son Amenhotep IV,[27] Egypt's relations with Mittani became cooler and had even taken a decisive turn for the worse. In such a case, the Mittanian attack would have been a signal for Egypt to restore its good relations with Mitiani, whether or not connected with military help. However, the exact chronology of these events is as yet not certain, nor whether the deterioration of these relations preceded the attack or followed it,[28] or whether the attack was still in the last years of Amenhotep III or during the reign of his son. At any rate, it was a show of strength against Egypt and not less against Mitiani's dependencies in northern and central Syria. Yet, in all probability, it was *not* directed against ʿAbdi-Aširta as has been suggested.[29] At this point in time, there is nothing yet to indicate that Amurru or the ʿAbdi-Aširta family had any connections with the Hittites.[30] In

[25] That a parity treaty might have included a mutual defense agreement is attested by the treaty concluded between Ramesses II and Ḫattušili III, which explicitly stipulates a mutual defense obligation (Akkadian version: *CTH* 91: A, obv. 27–39; Egyptian version: lines 15–19; cf. Edel 1997:30–37), and by the letter of Ḫattušili III to Kadašman-Enlil II, which refers to a military agreement (*CTH* 172: obv. 55–71; cf. Hagenbuchner 1989:281–300). Yet we cannot be sure whether the treaty concluded with Mitiani also included such an agreement. Nevertheless, one may assume that the Mitanians would have insisted upon the inclusion of such a clause in view of the troubles they were likely to anticipate from the Hittites. Note EA 24 iii 108–118, where there is either a Mitanian proposal of a mutual defense agreement or a reference to an already existing defense agreement.

[26] Redford 1984:195–197; Bryan 2000:83f.

[27] Sturm 1932:5–6.14; Goetze 1975:7f.; Wilhelm 1989:34; Murnane 1990:7; 2000:110; Artzi 2000:210f.

[28] So Murnane 1990:7, who sees in the attack the cause for this deterioration.

[29] Kitchen 1962:13 ("to rally support for the Egypto-Mitannian cause in view of Hittite hostility") and 27 ("expedition … across the Euphrates against Hittite-conquered territory"); Redford 1992:171 ("attempted to neutralize Amurru"). Kitchen was apparently misled by a wrong rendering (of Mercer?) of EA 75:42, according to which ʿAbdi-Aširta "has gone over to the Hittite" (p. 20 with note 8; p. 27). For the verb in question *ji-il-*[*qú*] "shall take" (Knudtzon: "hat … [*an sich*] genom[men]") instead of Mercer's (1939: I,279) "has gone" see Youngblood 1961:166; Altman 1973:I,131, II,117 note 159.

[30] Pace Kitchen 1962:20 with note 8; Astour 1981:19. More recently, Na'aman (1996) came out with a new restoration and interpretation of EA 45, according to which the letter relates an incident in which Ammištamru I, the king of Ugarit, detained messengers sent from Amurru to Ḫatti and intended to extradite them to Egypt. Lines 12–29 seem to

fact, if EA 90:19–22 refers indeed to a visit of ʿAbdi-Aširta to Mittani, it might indicate that the purpose was to sound out the possibility of winning the Mittanian king over to his side, much the same as was later done by Aziru with the Hittites.

Regarding the Hittite diplomatic contra-offensive at this early stage, the only source that might bear on it is EA 45. For a long time, EA 45:22–28 was assumed by many scholars to refer to a Hittite diplomatic pressure exerted upon Ammištamru I of Ugarit. Although the names of the king and land exerting the pressure are damaged in the letter, it is reasonable to identify them with Šuppiluliuma, either functioning already as the king of Ḫatti, or still under the authority of his father Tudḫaliya.[31] Recent studies of the text, made by Huehnergard (1989: see the index on p. 443f.), Moran (1992:117f.) and Na'aman (1996), suggest, however, that the pressure exerted according to this letter, was not necessarily intended to win Ugarit over to the side of Ḫatti in the struggle with Mittani.[32] As it stands now, there is no clear evidence for any Hittite diplomatic campaign at this early stage of Šuppiluliuma's operations in Syria.[33]

be concerned with some people arrested by the king of Ugarit, and a demand of the king of [Ḫatti] that they should not be delivered to either the king of [X; Na'aman: Mittani] or the king of Egypt. Yet nothing in the text justifies the restoration, in line 12, of the name Amurru as the provenance of these people (despite Na'aman's comment on lines 14–15 in p. 252). They might as well have been Hittite messengers sent to Ugarit.

[31] For the identification of the writer and his country (Ugarit) see Albright 1944:30ff. Knudtzon, upon editing this letter, restored in lines 22 and 30 the identification of the king who exerted the pressure as the Hittite king (Knudtzon 1915:1,310f.). This has been accepted by Albright (1944:33) and was followed later by various scholars, such as Kitchen 1962:35; Houwink ten Cate 1963:273; Astour 1981:17; 1989:71–73; Bryce 1989:45; Na'aman 1996:252; and more recently Singer 1999:622f. There is, however, no general agreement on this question. Klengel (1969:340; 1999:139) is undecided, while Liverani (1962:24f.) opted for Amurru (but see the refutation of Astour 1981:17). Yet, while other kings, such as the king of Mittani or Mukiš, or the ʿAbdi-Aširta family of Amurru, may come into account, still the most reasonable identification seems to me to be with a Hittite king. As for the question who was that king, Šuppiluliuma or his father come into account. Hittite operations in the days of Šuppiluliuma's father on the northern border of Ugarit are mentioned in fragment 8 of the "Šuppiluliuma's Deeds" (Güterbock 1956:61). It refers to Hittite operations in the region of Mount Ḫanti, a mountain mentioned in Hittite ritual documents often together with mount Ḫazzi, which is identified with Ǧebel el-'Arqa' (*RGTC* 6:106, sub Ḫazzi; 180, sub Nanni). Should we ascribe this operation to the Hittite pressure exerted on Ammištamru I, we would have to date the entire episode to the time of Šuppiluliuma's father (Astour 1989:73). But there is no necessity to take these two Hittite acts to be the same. See, however, the remark of Singer 1999:623, that if one accepts the revised chronology of Šuppiluliuma's reign suggested by Wilhelm and Boese 1987, which reduces his reign from about forty to about twenty years, the Hittite king in question could only be one of his predecessors, possibly his father Tudḫaliya. Na'aman (1996:257) ascribed the pressure to Šuppiluliuma, but dated it to after the conclusion of his "one-year-campaign," a suggestion I find hard to follow.

[32] As was pointed out in note 30 above, lines 12–29 seem to be concerned with some

III RS 17.132, 17.227, and 17.340

The second time we find mention in the Amarna letters of military pressure brought to bear by the kings of Nuḫašše on Amurru is in the context of the "one-year-campaign." This brings us to the wider affair of the diplomatic campaigns conducted by Šuppiluliuma on the one hand, and by Mukiš, Nuḫašše and Niya on the other. The best records of these campaigns are three documents from Ugarit, RS 17.132, 17.227 and 17.340.[34] There is no full consensus, however, about the exact span of time in which these documents were written and when the events they relate took place. While the majority of scholars date these events and records to the time of the "one-year-campaign,"[35] some postdate them after this campaign.[36] It would, therefore, be in place to precede the discussion of the diplomatic campaigns by dwelling a bit on the chronological issue.

There are indeed some points that speak in favor of postdating these documents to some time after the end of Šuppiluliuma's "one-year-campaign." First, the prologue of the Šattiwaza treaty (*CTH* 51.1: A obv. 1–47), which describes the main events of Šuppiluliuma's "one-year-campaign," does not mention the events that were referred to by these three documents. Second, these three documents present Niqmaddu and the kings of Mukiš, Nuḫašše and Niya as already subordinated to Šuppiluliuma, their "lord,"[37] and the kings of Mukiš, Nuḫašše and Niya as "rebels."[38] Since we do not know of any subjugation of these kings by Šuppiluliuma before his "one-year-campaign," it may argue for postdating these events. Finally, the names of the kings of Mukiš, Nuḫašše and Niya that appear in RS 17.340:2–3 (Itur-Addu, Addu-nirari and Aki-Teššub,

people arrested by the king of Ugarit, and the demand of the king of [Ḫatti] that they should not be delivered to either the king of [X; Na'aman: Mittani] or the king of Egypt. The people arrested seem indeed to be messengers, as was suggested by Na'aman. However, if I am correct in seeing in them Hittite messengers sent to Ugarit, then we may argue for a Hittite diplomatic pressure exerted upon Ammištamru and intended to persuade Ugarit to accept Hittite vassalage, or at least to remain neutral.

[33] Helck (1971:175) saw in Šarrupši's submission to Šuppiluliuma (*CTH* 53: A obv. i, 2–11) a result of this campaign. While this may be true, I understand it in quite a different way; see Altman 2002.

[34] *PRU* IV:35–37.40–43, and 48–52 respectively.

[35] Nougayrol 1956:34; Liverani 1962:39; Kitchen 1962:43; Klengel 1969:40ff.; 1992:109; 1999:157; Helck 1971:175; Goetze 1975:13; Astour 1981:20; Murnane 1990:9; Bryce 1998:177; Singer 1999:632–634.

[36] So Korošec (1960:67), Redford (1967:164 note 318, and 220f., 1984:197f., 1992:175), and Freu (1992:98). Similar opinion is implied from the allegation of Na'aman (1996:256f.) that the natural date for EA 45, written by Ammišiamru I of Ugarit, is after Šuppiluliuma's decisive campaign against Mittani.

[37] RS 17.132:25 (the kings of Mukiš and Nuḫašše), 15, 18, 29 (Niqmaddu); RS 17.227:5–6 (the kings of Mukiš and Nuḫašše), 13 (Niqmaddu); RS 17.340:4 (the kings of Mukiš, Nuḫašše and Niya), 11–13, 25–26 (Niqmaddu).

[38] RS 17.132:23–26; RS 17.227:4; RS 17.340:4.

respectively) do not match those who are mentioned as kings in the Šattiwaza treaty. In that treaty, no king of Mukiš is mentioned; the king of Niya is Takuwa, whereas Aki-Teššub is his brother who rebelled against him. As for Nuḫašše, the only person who is named is Šarrupši and not Addu-nirari. The simple conclusion that may be drawn from these points is that the three documents from Ugarit refer to some time after the "one-year-campaign."

Yet, there are three arguments for predating this affair before the conquest of Mukiš by Šuppiluliuma in the course of his "one-year-campaign":

1. According to RS 17.227:2–3, the king of Nuḫašše who took part in the effort to establish a front against Šuppiluliuma was Addu-nirari. He is known to us as the one who sent EA 51 to Egypt, in which he refers to an offer of a treaty that the Hittite king had sent him, an offer he seems to have rejected (rev. 4–6).[39] Such an offer is reasonable only if dated before Šuppiluliuma took control of Nuḫašše in the course of the "one-year-campaign," and before Addu-nirari could have become a "rebel." For such an offer would not have been the appropriate attitude we would have expected from Šuppiluliuma toward a "rebel."
2. According to RS 17.340:3, Aki-Teššub was the king of Niya who took part in the opposition to Šuppiluliuma. This man is known to us through *CTH* 51.1: A obv. 30–37, as the brother of Takuwa, "the king of Niya" at the time of the "one-year-campaign." According to this latter source, while Takuwa hurried to offer Šuppiluliuma his submission, Aki-Teššub "rebelled" and mobilized the army of Niya against Šuppiluliuma but was defeated and was taken in captivity to the Hittite capital. Postdating RS 17.340 after the end of that campaign would mean, that some time after the end of that campaign the Hittites replaced Takuwa, who had earlier voluntarily submitted to them, with Aki-Teššub, their enemy. And what is more, in quite a short time the latter again adopted his anti-Hittite policy (RS 17.340:3). While one cannot absolutely rule out such a scenario, it does not stand to reason. As for the disagreement between the Šattiwaza treaty and RS 17.340 regarding the true king of Niya, we may assume that the information of RS 17.340 is the correct one. That is, because the question who was then the true king of Niya was of no relevance to the case of RS 17.340, whereas in the case of the Šattiwaza treaty its drafters did have an interest to present the one who had submitted to Šuppiluliuma as the true king of Niya.
3. After the end of the "one-year-campaign," we find no other reference to a king of Mukiš or Niya. Neither there is any reference to a revolt by Mukiš, Nuḫašše and Niya against Šuppiluliuma. Indeed, the prologue of the Duppi-Teššub treaty refers to the hostility (*ik-ki-ru* "*became hostile*"; not necessarily "revolted"!)[40] of Nuḫašše and Kinza (Qadeš) in the days of Šuppiluliuma

[39] Though too damaged, the restoration offered by Moran (1992:122 with note 2) of these lines is quite reasonable.

[40] See for that matter the parallel Hittite verb in the Hittite version of this treaty,

(*CTH* 62.1: obv. 3). But in all probability, it refers rather to the period of the "one-year-campaign."[41] In any event, Mukiš is not included in that reference, while Kinza is not mentioned in the Ugaritic documents. So, even if we were to provide for a later rebellion of Nuḫašše and Kinza in the last years of Šuppiluliuma, it could not be identified with the events reported by the Ugaritic documents.

As for the absence of any reference in the Šattiwaza treaty to the episode described in the three documents from Ugarit, and for the alleged prior submission of Ugarit, Mukiš, Nuḫašše and Niya to Ḫatti, the following answers may be provided:

1. The first part of the prologue of the Šattiwaza treaty, the part that relates the events of the "one-year-campaign" (*CTH* 51.1: A, obv. 1–47), was devoted to justifying the Hittite takeover of the Mittanian subordinate states in Syria and eastern Asia Minor during the reign of Tušratta, Šattiwaza's father. It included, therefore, only events and takeover of states that might have had a bearing on the future relations between Šuppiluliuma and Šattiwaza.[42] Since, however, the episode of the pressure exerted upon Ugarit by Mukiš, Nuḫašše and Niya had no relevance to these relations, it was entirely ignored.
2. Regarding the question of the legal standing of Ugarit at the time RS 17.132 was written, it may be noted in the first place, that the statement of Niqmaddu, quoted in RS 17.340:12 (*anāku ardu ša* ^{II}*š*[*amši*^{š}]^{i} *šarri bêliya*, "I am a subordinate of the Sun, the Great King, my lord!"), does not necessarily indicate a prior submission. Such a statement, couched in the present tense and followed or preceded by a request for deliverance, seems to be an accepted formula in the ancient Near East to express readiness to submit to personal or

CTH 62.II: B i, 4–5: *kururiyaḫ*(*ḫ*)- "wage war (on), act hostile (towards), became enemy"; cf. Puhvel 1997:284f., and the translations of Del Monte 1986:157, and Beckman 1999:59.

[41] This reference has been taken by some scholars to attest to a revolt of Nuḫašše and Kinza in the last years of Šuppiluliuma I (see e.g. Kitchen 1962:49; Goetze 1975:19; Klengel 1969:148f.; 1992:159). However, not only is such a revolt unknown from any other source, but as far as Qadeš is concerned, it also hardly makes sense. For, it would mean that the Hittites had ignored its rebellion until the ninth regnal year of Muršili II, when, according to Muršili's Comprehensive Annals, upon the arrival of the Hittite forces Aitakkama was murdered by his son (Goetze 1933:120/121). Regarding the statement in question in the prologue of the Duppi-Teššub treaty, note that this prologue clearly distinguishes the behavior of Aziru on the first occurrence of hostilities against the Hittites from his behavior on the two later occurrences of hostilities. While in the latter events, Aziru and his son took an active part in helping the Hittites, on the first occurrence Aziru remained merely neutral. This would match with what is known about Aziru, that his first contacts with the Hittites (EA 161:47–49) took place shortly before the Hittites occupied Nuḫašše, but his final defection to them occurred much later; see note 11 above.

[42] I consider the references to Qadeš and Abina to have such relevance; see the discussion in Altman Forthcoming: Chapter 10.

political subservience in return for protection from an enemy or from any other danger of death.[43] As for Šuppiluliuma's claim of suzerainty over Ugarit, it should be understood as having been based not on any previous submission of Niqmaddu to Šuppiluliuma, but rather on a much older treaty, the nature of which will be discussed below.

3. Šuppiluliuma's claim to lordship over Mukiš, Nuḫašše and Niya might have stemmed, much the same as in the case of Ugarit, from a much older treaty, supposably from the time of Tudḫaliya I/II the conqueror of Aleppo.[44] There is, however, an alternative possibility that cannot be ruled out, that Šuppiluliuma's claim might have rested rather on a recent subjugation, in the course of his early "Syrian foray."[45]

So much for the question of the correct dating of RS 17.132, 17.227 and 17.340. Turning now to the historical details provided by these documents, let us start with RS 17.132, Šuppiluliuma's letter to Niqmaddu. The letter displays a clear example of the Hittite diplomatic campaign to frustrate any attempt, particularly by the kings of Mukiš and Nuḫašše, to mobilize the states of northern and central Syria into an anti-Hittite bloc. The most likely dating for this letter would be just before Šuppiluliuma's incursion into northern Syria in the course of his "one-year campaign."

As I have already analyzed this letter in much detail elsewhere,[46] I will focus on the main facts that may be inferred from it and are directly related to the issues at hand:

[43] For detailed discussion, see Altman 2002.

[44] We lack, however, any clear evidence for this. For Nuḫašše and Aštata there may be such evidence in the Aleppo treaty, if it is correct to restore "the king of the land of Ḫatti" in obv. 30 (so Na'aman 1980); restoration of the name "Aštata" in line 31 is more certain. For Aštata we have perhaps further evidence in *KUB* LVII 18, which might be a part of a treaty with the people of Aštata (see Klengel 1988: Col. 648f.; Klinger 1995:245). Yet, even if we do not have clear evidence, still it is very likely, and in the case of Mukiš even required, that both these countries fell under the overlordship of Tudḫaliya. Since without having control over Mukiš, the Hittites would not have been able to maintain an effective hold of Aleppo. If this presumption is correct, it would provide, in turn, an explanation to Šuppiluliuma I's claim in his letter to Niqmaddu II to be the "lord" of Nuḫašše and Mukiš: RS 17.132:25.26 (*PRU* IV:35f.). This may also be true with Niya, which was then in all probability under the overlordship of Mukiš as may be inferred from Alalakh Tablets 215, rev. 4. Less conclusive are the references to Niya in Alalakh Tablets 297:8–11; 298 i 11; 397:1–4; 398:4; 400:7; 426:2–4. Cf. Klengel 1969:67; Astour 1969:388. It would seem that the treaty *CTH* 135, concluded between a Hittite king whose name has not been preserved and a king of Tunip, is very likely to be ascribed to Tudḫaliya I/II. Cf. most recently Klinger 1995:235ff., and Klengel 1999:105 (A5).

[45] Although, admittedly, in view of the laconic wording of the reference to this foray (*CTH* 51.I: A, obv. 4) I find this possibility hard to accept.

[46] Altman 1981 (Hebrew). A revised English version is in preparation.

1. Šuppiluliuma claims suzerainty over Ugarit: This assertion is clear from his introducing himself as Niqmaddu's "lord" (lines 15, 18, 29), and his demand that Niqmaddu coordinate his foreign affairs with those of Ḫatti (lines 11–13).[47] Such expressions and demands are acceptable only in a letter addressed to a vassal king.[48] In addition, there are a number of other features in the letter that are characteristic only of letters sent by a suzerain to his vassal kings.[49]
2. At the time the letter was written, there existed a valid treaty (*riksu*) between Ḫatti and Ugarit, which Niqmaddu was now called upon to honor (lines 19–21).
3. Niqmaddu's forefathers were bound up with the kings of Ḫatti in peaceful relations (lines 7–9). Such relations, however, could only have been based on a treaty.[50] This, moreover, should have been a *subordination* treaty, according to which Ugarit was subordinated to Ḫatti. This conclusion is derived from the demand extended to Niqmaddu to coordinate his foreign affairs with those of Ḫatti "*just the same*" (line 11: *annaka* "thus," "so") as his forefathers had done. As mentioned above, such a demand could have only been extended to only subordinate kings.[51] This conclusion is further supported by the above-mentioned fact that the writer defines himself as the "*lord*" of Niqmaddu. This claim should have been based on that old treaty, since no mention is made here, nor do we know, of any extant treaty that had ever been previously concluded between Niqmaddu and Šuppiluliuma.
4. Notwithstanding that former treaty, there was still a need for a (new) treaty between Šuppiluliuma and Niqmaddu. This need is to be inferred from the fact that at the end of the letter Šuppiluliuma promised Niqmaddu a treaty to

[47] For such a demand as characteristic of Hittite vassal treaties see Korošec 1931:68f., and note 1 on p. 69.

[48] While the expression "my lord," when employed by the writer in addressing the addressee, may be no more than a courteous form of address indicating differences in age, office, rank, power, or prestige, it is entirely different when the writer presents himself as the "lord" of the addressee.

[49] These are: (1) Šuppiluliuma does not identify himself by his name, nor by the name of his country, as was the accepted practice in correspondence between sovereign rulers, but rather only by his title "the Sun, the Great King"; (2) Niqmaddu is not addressed as "the King of Ugarit"; (3) the usual courteous announcement regarding the well-being of the writer, his house and his country, and the correspondent wishing the addressee the same, are entirely omitted; (4) the usually reference to the *šulmānu*-gifts is omitted.

[50] Pace Kestemont 1974:585–588, who argued that the Hittite acknowledged a state of non-belligerence that was not based upon a written pact. Kestemont based his view on his interpretation of lines 6–8 of the present letter, and on the prologue of the Alakšandu treaty (*CTH* 76), both of which I interpreted differently (for the latter prologue, see in Altman Forthcoming: Chapter 12). That the Hittites acknowledged only a state of peace which is based upon a treaty, see Goetze 1957:97.

[51] See note 47 above. In parity treaties, only non-aggression and mutual defense pacts came into account.

be drawn up upon the completion of the campaign to crush Mukiš and Nuḫašše (lines 49–52).

The first point that needs clarification and verification is Šuppiluliuma's claim, that at the time the letter was written there was still in existence a valid (vassal) treaty between the two states. Some facts raise doubts as to the veracity or the accuracy of this claim. Both RS 17.227 and RS 17.340, because of the events described in their prologue, should have been written later than this letter, that is after Šuppiluliuma had promised a new treaty to Niqmaddu. Whether or not these two documents made up the promised treaty, they were surely part of it. And yet, their prologues make no mention of any previous treaty. This fact is even more conspicuous in RS 17.227, whose prologue emphasizes the continuity of relations between Ḫatti and Ugarit. Had there been indeed a valid treaty extant at the time RS 17.227 was written, we would have expected this fact to be clearly acknowledged as the basis for this new document, and as proof to the claim of continuity.[52] Furthermore, in such a case we would have expected these two documents to tell us clearly whether they had come to replace the terms of the old treaty, by improving the status of Niqmaddu and Ugarit as a reward for Niqmaddu's loyalty, or rather to extend the original terms.[53] But neither of these documents is presented as coming to amend an earlier treaty or to improve upon it. We can be sure of this at least with regard to 17.227, which has been preserved in its entirety.

Further facts that bear on this issue are found in the above Šuppiluliuma's letter to Niqmaddu. While referring to an old treaty, the letter does not spell out the existence of a personal treaty between Niqmaddu and either Šuppiluliuma or any other Hittite king. Moreover, the old treaty is referred to as the "treaty and peace of the Land of Ḫatti" (*ri-ik-sà ù ša-la-ma ša* KUR *Ḫa-at-ti*; lines 19–20) without clarifying with whom and when this treaty was signed. This is also the case in lines 8–9 where Niqmaddu's forefathers are presented as those who had kept the "peace" rather with "the Land of Ḫatti" (*it-ti* KUR *Ḫa-at-ti ša-a-ši-mi*) and not with the "kings of Ḫatti." In other words, Ḫatti, and not the kings of Ḫatti, is presented here as the Hittite party to that old treaty—a quite unusual presentation. Finally, Šuppiluliuma promised Niqmaddu a (new) treaty upon his return from fighting the kings of Mukiš and Nuḫašše. The letter does not explain, however, why there was a need for a new treaty if there was already a valid one in existence.

Thus, from Šuppiluliuma's letter to Niqmaddu one may infer that in the not too distant past there indeed existed a treaty between Ugarit and Ḫatti, under

[52] At least we would have expected a reference to previous relations. For such references, see the prologues of the treaties of Šunaššura, Duppi-Teššub, Alakšandu, Bentešina, and Kurunta.

[53] For examples of the first case, see the treaties of Kurunta and Ulmi-Teššub; for the second, see the Bentešina treaty.

which Ugarit was subservient to Ḫatti. Nevertheless, one may suspect whether, at the time this letter was written, that old treaty was still valid.

These doubts are farther augmented by the historical fact that Šuppiluliuma was an usurper who took the throne of Ḫatti by overthrowing its legal king.[54] Indeed, Šuppiluliuma was not entirely an outsider. Being the son of Tudḫaliya III, he belonged to the former Hittite royal house and shared with its members both its rights and its obligations regarding Ḫatti's vassal kings. This entitled him to claim the loyalty of Niqmaddu in his letter to him. The more so, as the Hittite vassal treaties usually bound the vassal king and his people not only to the Hittite royal house but also to "the land of Ḫatti."[55] Yet, these treaties first and foremost bound the signatories by personal bond and, save for treaties drawn up to rebellious king, were based upon mutual promises given by the parties. And once the suzerain party could no longer stand behind its promises—as in case he was removed, defeated or died without heirs—the subordinate party was entitled to see himself free from his own promises. So, even if Niqmaddu were still bound to the obligations of the older treaty by virtue of being a legitimate heir to his forefathers and their obligations, the illegal seizure of the Hittite throne by Šuppiluliuma would have entitled Niqmaddu to consider himself discharged from those obligations.

But there was more in such a case. The Hittite vassal treaties also requested the vassal king to protect the Hittite king and his legitimate heir from any usurper.[56] Accordingly, Niqmaddu's loyalty should have been directed only to the deposed king, obligating him to regard Šuppiluliuma as an enemy and to fight him. These facts surely created a new situation that necessitated a new treaty between Šuppiluliuma and Niqmaddu. They may also explain why both RS 17.227 and 17.340 entirely ignored the former treaty. For any reference to the older treaty would have only evoked the obligation of Niqmaddu to fight Šuppiluliuma, and would have given Niqmaddu an opening to ignore his new obligations under the pretext that they contradict his old obligations toward the expelled king.[57]

It is in this light that we also have to understand Šuppiluliuma's attitude in his letter to Niqmaddu. Since the letter is a diplomatic and not a legal document, Šuppiluliuma could still claim suzerainty over Ugarit on the basis of the old treaty. But even there he refrained from spelling out when and with which Hit-

[54] See "The First Plague Prayer" of Muršili II (*CTH* 378.1): Goetze 1929:164ff.; Lebrun 1980:193ff.

[55] See Korošec 1931:41 and 66f.

[56] See Korošec 1931:66f. and 69 for the more general obligation to be hostile to his enemies.

[57] One may infer the awareness of the Hittite drafters to the chance of a conflict of obligations from the Šunaššura treaty (*CTH* 41.1), ii, 43 and 53, where such a chance was taken into account. For further discussion on this issue, see Altman Forthcoming: Chapter 13.

tite king this treaty was signed, and emphasized instead the fact that the treaty and the peace are of "the Land of Ḫatti." Perhaps in consideration of the legal situation, he had also refrained from posing an open threat to Niqmaddu should he choose to side with the anti-Hittite bloc.

The next issue that needs clarification is the chronological order of these three documents and the historical events they describe. There could be no doubt that Šuppiluliuma's letter is the earliest of the three.[58] Turning to RS 17.227 and 17.340, it may be noted in the first place that the events presented by their prologues are not identical. RS 17.227 mentioned the political pressures brought to bear upon Ugarit by the kings of Mukiš and Nuḫašše, but nothing about any military pressure or any invasion into Ugarit that appears in RS 17.340. Consequently, RS 17.227 also did not mention Niqmaddu's appeal to Šuppiluliuma for help, followed by a declaration of self-submission. It also fails to mention Šuppiluliuma's act to deliver Ugarit, the return of the booty taken from Ugarit, and the distribution of gifts by Niqmaddu to the officers of the Hittite army that liberated his land—details mentioned in RS 17.340. Finally, the prologue of RS 17.227 also ignored the journey of Niqmaddu to Alalaḫ, Mukiš' capital, to pay homage to Šuppiluliuma. Indeed, Niqmaddu's appearing before Šuppiluliuma was mentioned in RS 17.227, but it was made in lines 43–46, which are part of the stipulatory section, and not in the prologue, as we would have expected, and without mentioning that the meeting was held in Alalaḫ.

Of these two legal documents, RS 17.227 seems to be the earlier. While RS 17.227 speaks only of diplomatic pressure, RS 17.340 speaks of military pressure exerted by Mukiš, Nuḫašše and Niya, as well as of the military deliverance by the Hittite army. It is very unlikely that the military pressure and the military deliverance preceded the diplomatic pressure. The more so, as in such a case it would be difficult to understand how it happened that the drafters of RS 17.227 have yielded the legal advantage the military deliverance offered them and not have mentioned it. Only two scenarios seem possible here: either both the military pressure and the military deliverance occurred sometime after RS 17.227 was written, or that only the military deliverance postdated this document. Choosing between the two needs yet a closer examination of the texts.

Both documents cite Niqmaddu's appearance before Šuppiluliuma (RS 17.227:43–48; RS 17.340:24–25), but only RS 17.340 named Alalaḫ as the place of this meeting. While one cannot entirely exclude the possibility that there

[58] Two points in the letter attest to it: (1) The letter anticipated pressure (lines 4–5), even military threats (30–32), against Ugarit by its neighbors, and asked Niqmaddu to resist this pressure; the two other documents use the past tense to describe such pressure, and praise Niqmaddu's behavior in opposing the pressure. (2) From the letter, it is clear that Mukiš had not yet been conquered (lines 22–39), while RS 17.340:24–25 mentions the visit of Niqmaddu to Šuppiluliuma in Alalaḫ, Mukiš' capital, which means that at that time Mukiš had already fallen to the Hittites. Also RS 17.227:44–46 refers to the visit of Niqmaddu to Šuppiluliuma, and though the name of Alalaḫ is not specified, there is no doubt that the same meeting in Alalaḫ was meant (see below).

were two different meetings—one before and one after Mukiš was conquered—it would not make much sense. For that would mean that the first meeting should have taken place either in Aleppo or still further to the east—two possibilities that cannot be taken into account since Ugarit was blocked on the north and east by Mukiš and Nuḫašše. It would be more reasonable to maintain that these two documents deal with only one meeting, that was held in Alalaḫ, the only place that is explicitly named. This, in turn, would mean, that RS 17.227 should have been written after Mukiš had been conquered by Šuppiluliuma.

Now, since it does not make sense that the king of Mukiš would have continued to exert any military pressure on Ugarit after his capital was conquered, we must assume that this military pressure began well before the fall of Mukiš. For the same reason, we have to assume that also Niqmaddu's request for military aid (including the statement of his readiness to submit to Hittite rule) was made before Mukiš was conquered. Hence, the military pressure, Niqmaddu's request for help, and his appearance before Šuppiluliuma in Alalaḫ—all would have occurred before RS 17.227 was written. Why, then, this document entirely ignored the first two events, and its prologue ignored Niqmaddu's appearance in Alalaḫ?

The key to this question lies in the correct reconstruction of the chronological order of the events in question, and in the differences in the kind of argumentation that the prologues of RS 17.227 and 17.340 present.

The legal argumentation of the prologues of these two documents entirely differ from each other. RS 17.227 based the Hittite claim over Ugarit on the mere fact that Niqmaddu, by his refusal to ally himself with the anti-Hittite bloc and maintaining his loyalty to Šuppiluliuma, "his lord," demonstrated his readiness to remain subordinate to the Hittite overlordship. A reference to this loyalty appears indeed also in RS 17.340, but there it was pushed to the end of the prologue, while the enumeration of the deliverance acts of the Hittite king on behalf of his would-be vassal was brought to the fore. The difference between the two is meaningful. In RS 17.227, the Great King is presented as the one who is indebted for the loyalty of his vassal, and the terms of the document are presented as a reward for that loyalty. RS 17.340, however, presents the vassal as the one who is indebted to his overlord, and the subordination of Niqmaddu and Ugarit to Šuppiluliuma comes as a return for the Hittite act of deliverance.

Correlatively, in RS 17.227 the Hittite claim of suzerainty over Ugarit was based on the right of possession. This kind of claim is characterized by presenting the current relations between the parties as a continuation of prior relations, with an emphasis on a demonstration of the vassal king's loyalty toward the Hittite Great King. This demonstration disclosed the consent of the vassal king to his and his country's status of subordination and to the terms of that subordination.[59] In RS 17.340, however, the basic argument is that the vassal king, by

[59] For claims to the right of possession in the Hittite subordination treaties, see Altman 2001b.

his own volition, has subjugated himself and his country to the Hittite king in return for protection and help. The argument is preceded by an account of the circumstances that moved the subordinate king to make this step, and it is followed by a description of the deliverance act by the Great King, an act that constituted the consideration (or *causa*) for the submission.[60]

These differences in the argumentation of the two prologues hold the explanation for the differences in the presentation of the events that led to the drawing up of the two documents. Since the argumentation employed by RS 17.227 was designed to create the (false) impression of a continuation in Ugarit's subordination to Ḫatti, it had no place for Niqmaddu's declaration that he is ready to become subjugated. Nor did it have room for a declaration on his part that he is presently subordinated, since this would imply that his overlord had no knowledge of his vassal's status. Evidently for the same reason, the prologue does not mention the fact that Niqmaddu traveled to Alalaḫ to pay homage to Šuppiluliuma. For a subordinated king such a visit was a basic request,[61] and a matter of course. On that account, there would also be no room for emphasizing the fact that Niqmaddu appealed for aid. The usual relationship between the Great King and his vassals, particularly with self-subjugated kings, required the former to render such help.[62] A statement to the effect that the vassal king was requested to submit such an appeal before being granted help would have added no weight to the Hittite's case.

Yet, the argumentation of RS 17.227 still had room for a description of both the military pressure brought to bear upon Ugarit by her neighbors and the help Šuppiluliuma extended to Ugarit and Niqmaddu. For such an act would have demonstrated that the Great King indeed kept to his undertakings. Nevertheless, references to both the military duress and the military deliverance of Ugarit were entirely omitted. The only reasonable explanation that may be given to this omission is that at the time RS 17.227 was written the military problem had not yet been resolved. For in such a case, the drafters would surely have deliberately avoided mentioning it as long as they could not declare that the pressure had been removed. As Ugarit's suzerain, the Hittite king was obliged to come to its aid, and any failure to lift the military pressure from Ugarit would have placed a stain on Šuppiluliuma.

Contrarily, in the framework of the RS 17.340's argumentation, it was inappropriate to describe Niqmaddu's refusal to join an anti-Hittite coalition, since such an act would have appeared to be a favor on the part of Niqmaddu in return

[60] Apart from the present example in RS 17.340, additional examples of this argumentation are provided by the treaties of Šattiwaza (*CTH* 51), Tette (*CTH* 53), and Aziru (*CTH* 49), and "the Šattiwaza declaration" (*CTH* 52).

[61] See Korošec 1931:85.

[62] Indeed, many treaties put it clearly that in case of military duress the vassal king has to inform the Great King and explicitly ask for help in order to get it. Even so, there was no place for the Great King to display such a request in the prologue, the more so emphatically as it was done here.

for the military aid, and would weaken the Hittite case. On the other hand, it was important here to present the fact that Niqmaddu traveled to Alalaḫ to pay homage to Šuppiluliuma. For it expressed Niqmaddu's satisfaction from the deliverance act, the consideration he got for his submission.

What still needs an explanation is why and how it happened that different kinds of argumentation were employed by the Hittite drafters for these two legal documents, drawn up to the same person and in quite short of time.

The only way to explain this is to assume that RS 17.227 was written after Mukiš was defeated, but before the armies of Niya and Nuḫašše, whose pressure on Ugarit continued to be exerted, were expelled. Unable, yet, to state that Šuppiluliuma had removed the military pressure from Ugarit, the drafters of RS 17.227 preferred to avoid any mention of military pressure. That, in turn, excluded the possibility of employing the argumentation of "self-subjugation in return for deliverance," and they have to resorted to dubitable argumentation of a "claim of possession," creating the false impression of a continuation of old-time relations. Dubitable, because the drafter did not present a plea of lawful acquisition, through which Ḫatti acquired suzerainty over Ugarit,[63] or at least the origin of these relations, nor did they claim an uninterrupted possession over a long period of time—two of the three essential components in a claim of possession.[64] It is thus no wonder that as soon as Hittite forces drove away the invading forces of the anti-Hittite coalition from Ugarit, the Hittite drafter did not fail to take advantage of it, and upon drawing up RS 17.340, to present entirely different argumentation.

This assumption meshes well with the chronology of Šuppiluliuma's campaign in Syria as narrated in the prologue of the Šattiwaza treaty (*CTH* 51), A obv. lines 30–40. According to that description, Aleppo and Mukiš were the first to be conquered by Šuppiluliuma in Syria, Niya followed, and Nuḫašše only afterwards, with a certain amount of time elapsing between each conquest.

Taking into account all the known facts together with the above considerations, I would suggest the following reconstructed order of events:

1. When the Kings of Mukiš, Nuḫašše and Niya realized that the Mittanian army had retreated without offering any resistance to Šuppiluliuma's army, and that they could no longer rely on the strength of Mittani, these kings hastened to organize a military bloc against Ḫatti made up of the kings of northern and central Syria. At first, they employed only diplomatic means. It was then that they tried to mobilize the support of Niqmaddu (RS 17.227:3–11), and in all likelihood, similar appeals were addressed to Qadeš, Tunip and Aziru of Amurru. To this phase, we have in all probability to also ascribe

[63] For such a plea, see the examples in the openings of the prologues of the Duppi-Teššub treaty (*CTH* 62), the Talmi-Šarrumma treaty (*CTH* 75), the Alakšandu treaty (*CTH* 76), the Bentešina treaty (*CTH* 92), and the Šaušgamuwa treaty (*CTH* 105).

[64] Cf. the prologues of the treaties of Duppi-Teššub, Bentešina, and Šaušgamuwa, and the discussion in Altman 2001b.

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